

LECTURE 8

Derivatives, Taylor's Theorem, and Analyticity

MATH S4061 | Introduction to Modern Analysis I

Tuesday, 23 June 2026

And what are these fluxions? The velocities of evanescent increments.

GEORGE BERKELEY, THE ANALYST (1734)

CONTENTS OF THIS LECTURE

- 8.1 Derivatives as first-order approximations
 - 8.2 Rules for derivatives
 - 8.3 Oscillation examples
 - 8.4 Extrema and the Mean Value Theorem
 - 8.5 Darboux's theorem
 - 8.6 Taylor polynomials and Taylor's theorem
 - 8.7 Real and complex analyticity
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Overview. This lecture begins the differential part of the course. The derivative is first defined by the difference quotient, then immediately reinterpreted as the best first-order linear approximation. That viewpoint makes the usual rules of differentiation bookkeeping in powers of the increment, and it also explains the multivariable definition. The lecture then turns the derivative into a global tool through Fermat's interior-extremum theorem, Rolle's theorem, the Mean Value Theorem, monotonicity, and Darboux's theorem. It closes with Taylor's theorem and the distinction between smooth and analytic functions, first over $\mathbb{R}$ and then over $\mathbb{C}$. The companion text is Rudin, Chapter 5, with the closest matches marked by the locators `R 5.1–R 5.16`.

8.1 Derivatives as first-order approximations

Definition 8.1.1

Derivative at a point

Let $f : (a, b) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ and let $x_0 \in (a, b)$. The function f is *differentiable at x_0* (R 5.1) if the limit

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow x_0} \frac{f(x) - f(x_0)}{x - x_0} = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(x_0 + h) - f(x_0)}{h}$$

exists. This limit is the *derivative* of f at x_0 , denoted $f'(x_0)$.

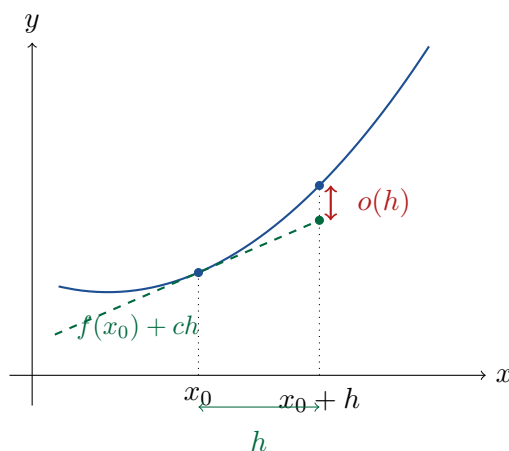


Figure 8.1.2. BEST LINEAR APPROXIMATION. Near x_0 , differentiability says the graph of f is shadowed by an affine line whose error is smaller than the displacement.

Proposition 8.1.3

Differentiability as a first-order expansion

For $f : (a, b) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ and $x_0 \in (a, b)$, the following are equivalent:

$$f \text{ is differentiable at } x_0 \quad \Longleftrightarrow \quad f(x_0 + h) = f(x_0) + ch + o(h)$$

for some $c \in \mathbb{R}$, where $o(h)$ means an error $E(h)$ satisfying

$$\frac{E(h)}{h} \rightarrow 0 \quad (h \rightarrow 0).$$

In that case $c = f'(x_0)$. This is Rudin's derivative definition R 5.1 written in the increment variable.

Proof 8.1.3

Proof by Rearranging the Difference Quotient.

(1) Suppose f is differentiable at x_0 . Define

$$E(h) = f(x_0 + h) - f(x_0) - f'(x_0)h.$$

Then the desired expansion holds with $c = f'(x_0)$, and for $h \neq 0$,

$$\frac{E(h)}{h} = \frac{f(x_0 + h) - f(x_0)}{h} - f'(x_0) \longrightarrow 0.$$

(2) Conversely, if $f(x_0 + h) = f(x_0) + ch + E(h)$ and $E(h)/h \rightarrow 0$, then

$$\frac{f(x_0 + h) - f(x_0)}{h} = c + \frac{E(h)}{h} \longrightarrow c.$$

Hence the difference quotient converges and $f'(x_0) = c$. ■

[Direct] increment form of R 5.1.

Definition 8.1.4

Differentiability from $\mathbb{R}^n$ to $\mathbb{R}^m$

Let $F : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$ and let $x_0 \in \mathbb{R}^n$. The function F is *differentiable at x_0* if there exists a linear map $A : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$ such that

$$F(x_0 + h) = F(x_0) + A(h) + E(h), \quad \frac{\|E(h)\|}{\|h\|} \longrightarrow 0 \quad (h \rightarrow 0).$$

The linear map A is unique; in the standard bases it is represented by the Jacobian matrix. Compare Rudin's one-parameter vector-valued derivative in R 5.16; the present definition replaces one real increment by a vector increment.

Remark 8.1.5

Why the linear map replaces division

In one real variable, the quotient

$$\frac{f(x_0 + h) - f(x_0)}{h}$$

is available because nonzero real increments have inverses. A vector increment $h \in \mathbb{R}^n$ has no comparable division operation, so the higher-dimensional definition subtracts a candidate linear map and asks that the remaining vector error be smaller than $\|h\|$. Complex differentiability is a special two-dimensional exception: identifying $\mathbb{R}^2$ with $\mathbb{C}$ restores division by a nonzero increment, but imposes a much stronger condition than ordinary real differentiability. Compare the vector-valued one-parameter derivative in R 5.16.

8.2 Rules for derivatives

Theorem 8.2.1

Differentiability implies continuity

If f is differentiable at x_0 , then f is continuous at x_0 (R 5.2).

Proof 8.2.1

Proof from the First-Order Expansion.

(1) By 8.1.3,

$$f(x_0 + h) = f(x_0) + f'(x_0)h + E(h), \quad \frac{E(h)}{h} \rightarrow 0.$$

(2) Since $E(h) = h(E(h)/h)$, we have $E(h) \rightarrow 0$. Therefore

$$f(x_0 + h) - f(x_0) = f'(x_0)h + E(h) \rightarrow 0,$$

which is continuity at x_0 . ■

[Direct] cf. R 5.2.

Corollary 8.2.2

Discontinuity obstructs differentiability

If f is not continuous at x_0 , then f is not differentiable at x_0 . This is the contrapositive of Rudin's differentiability-implies-continuity theorem R 5.2.

Proof 8.2.2

Proof by Contrapositive.

(1) The contrapositive of 8.2.1 says precisely that differentiability at x_0 forces continuity at x_0 .

(2) Therefore a failure of continuity at x_0 rules out differentiability there. ■

[A9]

Proposition 8.2.3

Algebra rules for derivatives

Suppose f and g are differentiable at x_0 . Then

$$(f \pm g)'(x_0) = f'(x_0) \pm g'(x_0), \quad (cf)'(x_0) = c f'(x_0),$$

$$(fg)'(x_0) = f'(x_0)g(x_0) + f(x_0)g'(x_0).$$

If $g(x_0) \neq 0$, then f/g is differentiable at x_0 and

$$\left(\frac{f}{g}\right)'(x_0) = \frac{f'(x_0)g(x_0) - f(x_0)g'(x_0)}{g(x_0)^2}.$$

These are Rudin's algebra rules for derivatives (R 5.3).

Proof 8.2.3

Proof by First-Order Bookkeeping.

(1) Write

$$f(x_0 + h) = f(x_0) + f'(x_0)h + E_f(h), \quad g(x_0 + h) = g(x_0) + g'(x_0)h + E_g(h),$$

with $E_f(h)/h \rightarrow 0$ and $E_g(h)/h \rightarrow 0$.

(2) Adding the expansions gives

$$(f + g)(x_0 + h) = (f + g)(x_0) + (f'(x_0) + g'(x_0))h + (E_f(h) + E_g(h)),$$

and the last error is $o(h)$ because

$$\frac{E_f(h) + E_g(h)}{h} = \frac{E_f(h)}{h} + \frac{E_g(h)}{h} \rightarrow 0.$$

The difference and scalar-multiple rules are the same calculation.

(3) Multiplying the expansions and collecting the constant and first-order terms gives

$$\begin{aligned} (fg)(x_0 + h) &= f(x_0)g(x_0) + f'(x_0)g(x_0)h + f(x_0)g'(x_0)h \\ &\quad + E_f(h)(g(x_0) + g'(x_0)h + E_g(h)) \\ &\quad + E_g(h)(f(x_0) + f'(x_0)h) + f'(x_0)g'(x_0)h^2. \end{aligned}$$

After division by h , the last line tends to 0 because the error ratios tend to 0 and the bracketed factors remain bounded. Hence the coefficient of h is the derivative of fg .

(4) If $g(x_0) \neq 0$, then by 8.2.1 the values $g(x_0 + h)$ stay nonzero for all sufficiently small h . Thus

$$\begin{aligned} \left(\frac{1}{g}\right)'(x_0) &= \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{1}{h} \left(\frac{1}{g(x_0 + h)} - \frac{1}{g(x_0)} \right) \\ &= - \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{g(x_0 + h) - g(x_0)}{h} \cdot \frac{1}{g(x_0 + h)g(x_0)} = - \frac{g'(x_0)}{g(x_0)^2}. \end{aligned}$$

Applying the product rule to $f \cdot (1/g)$ gives the quotient rule. ■

[Direct] cf. R 5.3.

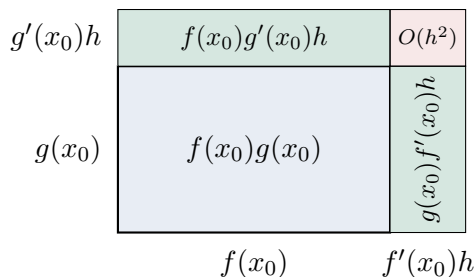


Figure 8.2.4. THE PRODUCT RULE. The two first-order strips contribute to the derivative of the area; the corner is second-order.

Proposition 8.2.5

Chain rule

Suppose f is differentiable at x_0 and g is differentiable at $f(x_0)$. Then $g \circ f$ is differentiable at x_0 and

$$(g \circ f)'(x_0) = g'(f(x_0))f'(x_0).$$

This is the chain rule (R 5.5).

Proof 8.2.5

Proof by Composing First-Order Errors.

(1) Let

$$k(h) = f(x_0 + h) - f(x_0).$$

Differentiability of f gives $k(h) = f'(x_0)h + E_1(h)$, with $E_1(h)/h \rightarrow 0$; in particular $k(h) \rightarrow 0$.

(2) Differentiability of g at $f(x_0)$ means there is an error $E_2(u)$ such that

$$g(f(x_0) + u) = g(f(x_0)) + g'(f(x_0))u + E_2(u), \quad \frac{E_2(u)}{u} \rightarrow 0.$$

To avoid dividing by a possibly zero displacement, define

$$H(u) = \begin{cases} E_2(u)/u, & u \neq 0, \\ 0, & u = 0. \end{cases}$$

Then $H(u) \rightarrow 0$ as $u \rightarrow 0$ and $E_2(u) = H(u)u$ for every u .

(3) Substituting $u = k(h)$ gives

$$\begin{aligned} g(f(x_0 + h)) &= g(f(x_0)) + g'(f(x_0))k(h) + H(k(h))k(h) \\ &= g(f(x_0)) + g'(f(x_0))f'(x_0)h + g'(f(x_0))E_1(h) + H(k(h))k(h). \end{aligned}$$

(4) The remainder divided by h tends to 0:

$$g'(f(x_0)) \frac{E_1(h)}{h} + H(k(h)) \frac{k(h)}{h} \longrightarrow 0 + 0 \cdot f'(x_0) = 0.$$

Therefore the coefficient of h is the derivative of $g \circ f$ at x_0 . ■

[Direct] cf. R 5.5.

Proposition 8.2.6

Power rule

For every integer $n \geq 0$,

$$\frac{d}{dx} x^n = nx^{n-1},$$

where the case $n = 0$ is read separately as the derivative of the constant function 1, namely 0. R 5.4

Proof 8.2.6

Proof by Induction Using the Product Rule.

- (1) For $n = 0$, the function $x^0 = 1$ is constant, so its derivative is 0.
- (2) For $n = 1$, the difference quotient of x is 1.
- (3) Assume $(x^n)' = nx^{n-1}$. Since $x^{n+1} = x \cdot x^n$, the product rule gives

$$(x^{n+1})' = (x)'x^n + x(x^n)' = x^n + nx^n = (n+1)x^n.$$

The formula follows by induction. ■

[A10]

8.3 Oscillation examples

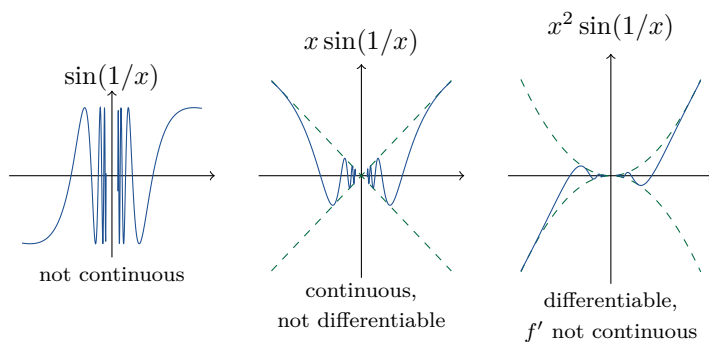


Figure 8.3.1. THREE OSCILLATORY FUNCTIONS. Multiplying by powers of x progressively tames the oscillation of $\sin(1/x)$ near 0.

Example 8.3.2

$\sin(1/x)$ is not continuous at 0

Define $f(0) = 0$ and $f(x) = \sin(1/x)$ for $x \neq 0$. Along sequences approaching 0, the values can approach different limits; for example one may choose points where $\sin(1/x) = 1$ and others where $\sin(1/x) = -1$. Thus f is not continuous at 0, and by 8.2.2 it is not differentiable there (cf. R 5.6).

Example 8.3.3

$x \sin(1/x)$ is continuous but not differentiable at 0

Let $f(0) = 0$ and $f(x) = x \sin(1/x)$ for $x \neq 0$. Since

$$|x \sin(1/x)| \leq |x|,$$

the squeeze theorem gives $f(x) \rightarrow 0 = f(0)$. But the difference quotient at 0 is

$$\frac{f(h) - f(0)}{h} = \sin(1/h),$$

which has no limit. Hence f is continuous at 0 but not differentiable there (R 5.6).

Example 8.3.4

$x^2 \sin(1/x)$ is differentiable but not C^1 at 0

Let $f(0) = 0$ and $f(x) = x^2 \sin(1/x)$ for $x \neq 0$. Then

$$\frac{f(h) - f(0)}{h} = h \sin(1/h) \rightarrow 0,$$

so $f'(0) = 0$. For $x \neq 0$, the product and chain rules give

$$f'(x) = 2x \sin(1/x) - \cos(1/x).$$

The first term tends to 0, but $\cos(1/x)$ has no limit as $x \rightarrow 0$. Thus f is differentiable at 0, yet f' is not continuous at 0 (R 5.6).

Remark 8.3.5

The hierarchy already separates

The three examples show that differentiability is stronger than continuity, and continuous differentiability is stronger than differentiability. Each extra factor of x narrows the envelope around the oscillation and buys one more degree of regularity at the origin (cf. R 5.6).

8.4 Extrema and the Mean Value Theorem

Definition 8.4.1

Local extrema

Let $f : E \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ and let $p \in E$. The function f has a *local maximum* at p if there exists $\delta > 0$ such that

$$q \in E, \quad |q - p| < \delta \quad \implies \quad f(q) \leq f(p).$$

A *local minimum* is defined by reversing the inequality (R 5.7).

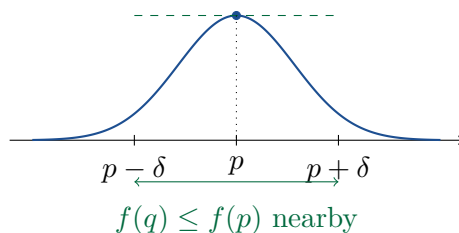


Figure 8.4.2. A LOCAL MAXIMUM. On a sufficiently small window around p , the value $f(p)$ dominates nearby values of the function.

Theorem 8.4.3

Interior extremum theorem

Let $f : (a, b) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be differentiable. If $x_0 \in (a, b)$ is a local maximum or a local minimum, then

$$f'(x_0) = 0.$$

This is Fermat's interior-extremum theorem (R 5.8).

Proof 8.4.3

Proof by One-Sided Difference Quotients.

- (1) Assume x_0 is a local maximum. For x sufficiently close to x_0 ,

$$f(x) - f(x_0) \leq 0.$$

- (2) If $x < x_0$, then $x - x_0 < 0$, so

$$\frac{f(x) - f(x_0)}{x - x_0} \geq 0.$$

Passing to the left-hand limit gives $f'(x_0) \geq 0$.

- (3) If $x > x_0$, then $x - x_0 > 0$, so

$$\frac{f(x) - f(x_0)}{x - x_0} \leq 0.$$

Passing to the right-hand limit gives $f'(x_0) \leq 0$.

- (4) The two one-sided limits are equal because $f'(x_0)$ exists. Therefore

$$0 \leq f'(x_0) \leq 0,$$

and $f'(x_0) = 0$. The minimum case is identical with the inequalities reversed. ■

Remark 8.4.4*Why the hypotheses matter*

The point must be interior because the proof uses both sides. At an endpoint only one one-sided inequality is available. The converse also fails: $f(x) = x^3$ has $f'(0) = 0$, but 0 is not a local extremum (cf. R 5.8).

Proposition 8.4.5**Rolle's theorem**

Let $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be continuous on $[a, b]$ and differentiable on (a, b) . If $f(a) = f(b)$, then there exists $c \in (a, b)$ such that

$$f'(c) = 0.$$

This is the Rolle special case behind Rudin's generalized mean-value theorem (R 5.9).

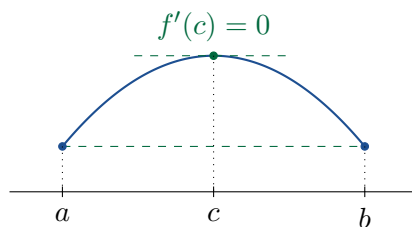


Figure 8.4.6. ROLLE'S THEOREM. Equal endpoint heights force a horizontal tangent at some interior point, unless the function is constant.

Proof 8.4.5

Proof by the Extreme-Value Theorem and Interior Extrema.

- (1) Since $[a, b]$ is compact and f is continuous, f attains a maximum and a minimum on $[a, b]$ by the extreme-value theorem from Lecture 7.
- (2) If either extreme is attained at an interior point $c \in (a, b)$, then 8.4.3 gives $f'(c) = 0$.
- (3) If no extreme is attained in the interior, then both the maximum and minimum occur at endpoints. Since $f(a) = f(b)$, the maximum and minimum values coincide. Hence f is constant on $[a, b]$, and any $c \in (a, b)$ satisfies $f'(c) = 0$.

■

[A6+A12] Rolle step behind R 5.9.

Corollary 8.4.7**Mean Value Theorem**

Let $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be continuous on $[a, b]$ and differentiable on (a, b) . Then there exists $c \in (a, b)$ such that

$$f'(c) = \frac{f(b) - f(a)}{b - a}.$$

This is the Mean Value Theorem (R 5.10).

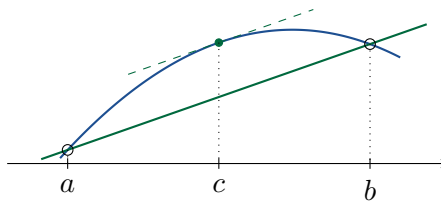


Figure 8.4.8. MEAN VALUE THEOREM. Some interior tangent is parallel to the chord joining the endpoints.

Proof 8.4.7

Proof by Tilting the Chord Flat.

- (1) Let L be the secant line

$$L(x) = f(a) + \frac{f(b) - f(a)}{b - a}(x - a),$$

and define $h = f - L$.

- (2) The function h is continuous on $[a, b]$ and differentiable on (a, b) . Also

$$h(a) = 0, \quad h(b) = 0.$$

- (3) By Rolle's theorem, there exists $c \in (a, b)$ with $h'(c) = 0$. Since

$$h'(x) = f'(x) - \frac{f(b) - f(a)}{b - a},$$

the conclusion follows. ■

[Constr] cf. R 5.10.

Corollary 8.4.9

Monotonicity test

Let f be differentiable on (a, b) .

1. If $f'(x) \geq 0$ for all $x \in (a, b)$, then f is nondecreasing.
2. If $f'(x) = 0$ for all $x \in (a, b)$, then f is constant.
3. If $f'(x) \leq 0$ for all $x \in (a, b)$, then f is nonincreasing.

These are the standard monotonicity consequences of the Mean Value Theorem (R 5.11).

Proof 8.4.9

Proof by Applying the Mean Value Theorem on Subintervals.

- (1) Fix $x_1 < x_2$ in (a, b) . By 8.4.7, there exists $\xi \in (x_1, x_2)$ such that

$$f(x_2) - f(x_1) = f'(\xi)(x_2 - x_1).$$

- (2) Since $x_2 - x_1 > 0$, the sign of $f(x_2) - f(x_1)$ is the sign of $f'(\xi)$. The three conclusions follow immediately from the three sign hypotheses. ■

[Direct] cf. R 5.11.

8.5 Darboux's theorem

Proposition 8.5.1

Darboux's theorem

Let f be differentiable on an interval containing $a < b$. If λ lies strictly between $f'(a)$ and $f'(b)$, then there exists $c \in (a, b)$ such that

$$f'(c) = \lambda.$$

Thus derivatives have the intermediate value property, even though derivatives need not be continuous (R 5.12).

Proof 8.5.1

Proof by Tilting and Taking an Interior Extremum.

- (1) Assume $f'(a) < \lambda < f'(b)$; the reverse case is obtained by changing signs. Define

$$g(x) = f(x) - \lambda x.$$

Then $g'(a) < 0$ and $g'(b) > 0$.

- (2) Since g is continuous on $[a, b]$, it attains a minimum at some point $c \in [a, b]$.
 (3) The condition $g'(a) < 0$ means that just to the right of a the values of g are smaller than $g(a)$, so the minimum is not attained at a . Similarly, $g'(b) > 0$ implies that just to the left of b the values of g are smaller than $g(b)$, so the minimum is not attained at b .
 (4) Hence the minimum is attained at an interior point $c \in (a, b)$. By 8.4.3, $g'(c) = 0$, and therefore

$$f'(c) - \lambda = 0.$$

[A12+Constr] cf. R 5.12. ■

Remark 8.5.2

What Darboux rules out

Darboux's theorem forbids derivatives from having jump discontinuities, because a jump would skip the intermediate values. The theorem does not say that derivatives are continuous: 8.3.4 gives a derivative with an oscillatory discontinuity at 0 (cf. R 5.12).

8.6 Taylor polynomials and Taylor's theorem

Definition 8.6.1

Taylor polynomial

Let $n \geq 1$, and suppose f has derivatives through order $n - 1$ at α . The *Taylor polynomial of degree at most $n - 1$ centered at α* is

$$P_{n-1}(x) = \sum_{k=0}^{n-1} \frac{f^{(k)}(\alpha)}{k!} (x - \alpha)^k, \quad f^{(0)} = f.$$

Rudin introduces higher derivatives in R 5.14 and this polynomial in R 5.15.

Proposition 8.6.2

Matching and uniqueness

The Taylor polynomial P_{n-1} is the unique polynomial of degree at most $n - 1$ satisfying

$$P_{n-1}^{(k)}(\alpha) = f^{(k)}(\alpha), \quad k = 0, 1, \dots, n - 1.$$

This is the matching property built into Rudin's Taylor polynomial in R 5.15.

Proof 8.6.2

Proof in the Shifted Polynomial Basis.

- (1) Write a general degree-at-most $n - 1$ polynomial in the shifted basis:

$$Q(x) = \sum_{k=0}^{n-1} c_k (x - \alpha)^k.$$

- (2) Differentiating k times and evaluating at α leaves only the k -th shifted monomial:

$$Q^{(k)}(\alpha) = k! c_k.$$

- (3) The matching conditions therefore force

$$c_k = \frac{f^{(k)}(\alpha)}{k!},$$

exactly the coefficients of P_{n-1} . Hence the matching polynomial exists and is unique. ■

[Direct]

Theorem 8.6.3**Taylor's theorem with Lagrange remainder**

Let $n \geq 1$. Suppose $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ has $f^{(n-1)}$ continuous on $[a, b]$ and $f^{(n)}$ exists on (a, b) . If $\alpha, \beta \in [a, b]$ are distinct and P_{n-1} is the Taylor polynomial centered at α , then there is a point ξ strictly between α and β such that

$$f(\beta) = P_{n-1}(\beta) + \frac{f^{(n)}(\xi)}{n!}(\beta - \alpha)^n.$$

This is Rudin's Taylor theorem with Lagrange remainder (R 5.15).

Proof 8.6.3

Proof by Iterated Rolle's Theorem.

- (1) Assume $\alpha < \beta$; the other order is identical on the interval between them. Choose M by

$$M = \frac{f(\beta) - P_{n-1}(\beta)}{(\beta - \alpha)^n},$$

so that $f(\beta) = P_{n-1}(\beta) + M(\beta - \alpha)^n$.

- (2) Define

$$g(x) = f(x) - P_{n-1}(x) - M(x - \alpha)^n.$$

By the matching property in 8.6.2,

$$g(\alpha) = g'(\alpha) = \cdots = g^{(n-1)}(\alpha) = 0,$$

and by the choice of M , $g(\beta) = 0$.

- (3) Apply Rolle's theorem repeatedly. First, $g(\alpha) = g(\beta) = 0$ gives a point $c_1 \in (\alpha, \beta)$ with $g'(c_1) = 0$. Then $g'(\alpha) = g'(c_1) = 0$ gives a point $c_2 \in (\alpha, c_1)$ with $g''(c_2) = 0$. Continuing n times gives a point $\xi \in (\alpha, \beta)$ with

$$g^{(n)}(\xi) = 0.$$

- (4) Since $P_{n-1}^{(n)} = 0$ and $\frac{d^n}{dx^n} M(x - \alpha)^n = n!M$,

$$0 = g^{(n)}(\xi) = f^{(n)}(\xi) - n!M.$$

Thus $M = f^{(n)}(\xi)/n!$, and substituting this into the definition of M gives the stated formula. ■

[A6+Constr] cf. R 5.15.

Remark 8.6.4

The qualitative little-o form

The Lagrange formula gives the quantitative error. If, in addition, $f^{(n)}$ is locally bounded near α —for instance if $f^{(n)}$ is continuous near α —then

$$f(t) - P_{n-1}(t) = O((t - \alpha)^n),$$

and hence

$$\frac{f(t) - P_{n-1}(t)}{(t - \alpha)^{n-1}} \rightarrow 0.$$

The boundedness condition is doing real work here; the existence of $f^{(n)}$ alone does not by itself provide local boundedness. This is the qualitative consequence of the Lagrange remainder in R 5.15.

8.7 Real and complex analyticity

Definition 8.7.1

Real analyticity at a point

A smooth real function f is *real analytic at α* if its Taylor series at α converges to f on some neighbourhood of α :

$$f(t) = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \frac{f^{(k)}(\alpha)}{k!} (t - \alpha)^k$$

for all t sufficiently close to α . This goes beyond Rudin's finite Taylor theorem R 5.15: one must also control the limiting behaviour of the remainders as the degree tends to infinity.

Counterexample 8.7.2

A smooth function need not be analytic

Define

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} e^{-1/x^2}, & x \neq 0, \\ 0, & x = 0. \end{cases}$$

This function is C^∞ , and all derivatives at 0 vanish. Its Taylor series at 0 is therefore identically 0, but $f(x) > 0$ for $x \neq 0$. Hence smoothness does not imply real analyticity. This is beyond Rudin's finite Taylor theorem R 5.15.

FAILS: the claim that knowing all derivatives at one point determines a smooth real function.

Theorem 8.7.3

Weierstrass Function

There exists a continuous function $W : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ that is differentiable at no point. This is an advanced separation result beyond Rudin Chapter 5.

Proof 8.7.3

Quoted Advanced Result.

$\hookrightarrow$ This theorem is stated as part of the regularity landscape; its proof is beyond the lecture.

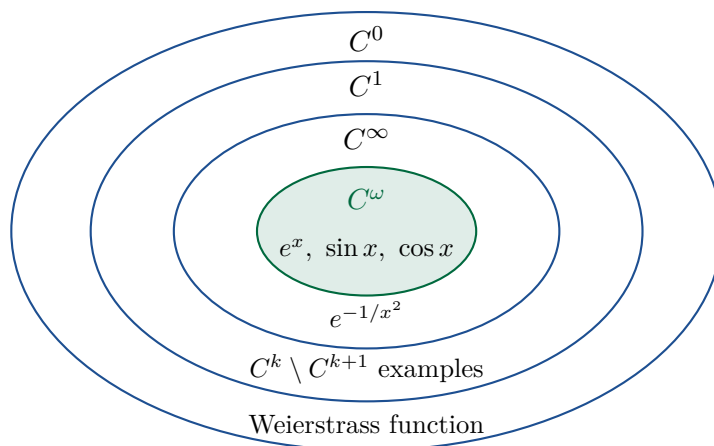


Figure 8.7.4. THE REAL REGULARITY TOWER. For real functions the inclusions between regularity classes are strict; each rung contains functions not lying on the next rung.

Remark 8.7.5

Derivative growth and Taylor convergence

Taylor convergence is controlled by the growth of the coefficients $f^{(r)}(\alpha)/r!$. If these coefficients grow too quickly, the formal Taylor series can have radius of convergence 0. A useful sufficient condition in the other direction is uniform control of derivatives on a neighbourhood: if the Lagrange remainders satisfy a bound forcing

$$\left| \frac{f^{(n)}(\xi)}{n!} (t - \alpha)^n \right| \rightarrow 0,$$

then the Taylor polynomials converge back to f near α . Compare the finite Lagrange-remainder control in R 5.15.

Theorem 8.7.6

Holomorphic functions are analytic

Let $U \subseteq \mathbb{C}$ be open. If $f : U \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ is complex differentiable at every point of U , then f is complex analytic: near each point of U , it is represented by a convergent power series. This complex-analysis theorem is beyond Rudin Chapter 5.

Proof 8.7.6

Quoted Theorem from Complex Analysis.

↪ The result is recorded to contrast real and complex differentiability; its proof belongs to complex analysis.

Remark 8.7.7

The real tragedy and the complex collapse

Over $\mathbb{R}$, the classes $C^1, C^2, \dots, C^\infty, C^\omega$ do not collapse. Over $\mathbb{C}$, the hypothesis is not ordinary real differentiability of a map $\mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^2$; it is complex differentiability on an open set, a much more rigid condition. Under that holomorphic hypothesis, one derivative already forces local power-series representation. This is the contrast with Rudin's finite Taylor theorem R 5.15 and beyond the real-variable scope of Chapter 5.

Index of Objects

8.1.1	Definition: Derivative at a point	2
8.1.3	Proposition: Differentiability as a first-order expansion	2
8.1.4	Definition: Differentiability from $\mathbb{R}^n$ to $\mathbb{R}^m$	3
8.2.1	Theorem: Differentiability implies continuity	3
8.2.2	Corollary: Discontinuity obstructs differentiability	4
8.2.3	Proposition: Algebra rules for derivatives	4
8.2.5	Proposition: Chain rule	6
8.2.6	Proposition: Power rule	7
8.4.1	Definition: Local extrema	8
8.4.3	Theorem: Interior extremum theorem	9
8.4.5	Proposition: Rolle's theorem	10
8.4.7	Corollary: Mean Value Theorem	10
8.4.9	Corollary: Monotonicity test	11
8.5.1	Proposition: Darboux's theorem	12
8.6.1	Definition: Taylor polynomial	13
8.6.2	Proposition: Matching and uniqueness	13
8.6.3	Theorem: Taylor's theorem with Lagrange remainder	14
8.7.1	Definition: Real analyticity at a point	15
8.7.2	Counterexample: A smooth function need not be analytic	15
8.7.3	Theorem: Weierstrass Function	15
8.7.6	Theorem: Holomorphic functions are analytic	16